

Masculine Instrumentality and Feminine Expressiveness: Their Relationships with Sex Role Attitudes and Behaviors

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Data from the Bem Sex Role Inventory (BSRI) and the Personal Attributes Questionnaire (PAQ) Masculinity and Femininity scales have led to the hypothesis that androgynous individuals are more "behaviorally flexible" than others, manifesting both masculine and feminine role behaviors. Sex-role androgyny is also said to have other beneficial consequences such as high self esteem. The content of these instruments, however, is largely confined to socially desirable instrumental (masculine) and expressive (feminine) personality traits. A review of the literature indicates that these abstract trait dimensions have only minimal relationships with sex-role attitudes and sex-role behaviors not tapping instrumentality and expressiveness, and provide little support for the general behavioral flexibility hypothesis. Although PAQ and BSRI findings cannot be generalized to sex-role behaviors in general, the literature suggests that instrumentality and expressiveness per se have important implications. Appreciation of their contributions may be advanced more rapidly if these trait dimensions are disentangled from global concepts of sex-roles or masculinity, femininity, and androgyny.

The concept of "psychological androgyny" and the theoretical framework in which this concept has been embedded, as formulated by Bem (1974) and others (Kelly & Worell, 1977), rest on three interrelated propositions. (1) "Masculine" and "feminine" characteristics, i.e., attributes and behaviors that distinguish normatively between the sexes in a given society, can be conceived as two sepa-

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rate dimensions that vary relatively independently. Thus, men and women not only can but often do exhibit a high degree of both masculine and feminine qualities, i.e., they can be described as androgynous (Bem, 1977). (2) Masculinity and femininity are each unidimensional phenomena. This proposition, which is implicit rather than explicitly stated in the writings of androgyny theorists, implies that individuals who exhibit or admit into their self-concept a certain degree of masculinity or femininity in one domain (e.g., personality characteristics) will be highly likely to exhibit the same degree of masculinity and of femininity in all other domains (e.g., preference for gender-differentiated recreational activities). As noted by Constantinople (1973) the tacit assumption that gender-related phenomena are unidimensional has held sway over the long history of psychological research on masculinity-femininity and related topics. The contemporary version of this postulate, as implied in (1) above, is that rather than a single bipolar construct, masculinity-femininity, there are two unidimensional constructs, masculinity and femininity. (3) Possession of a high degree of both masculine and feminine qualities (androgyny) is more advantageous to the individual than possession of a high degree of only masculine or feminine characteristics, or of a low degree of both.¹ This argument has taken a number of forms, two of which we will describe briefly. First, the capacity to exhibit both masculine and feminine behaviors, as appropriate to the situation, is desirable *per se* (Bem, in press; Ickes & Barnes, 1978). Second, in contrast to an earlier view that sex-typed individuals are less likely to be maladjusted than others, many advocates of androgyny theory suggest instead that men and women who possess both masculine and feminine attributes tend to be psychologically healthier and more socially effective.

Most of the empirical research attempting to test the validity of this set of assumptions has employed the Bem Sex Role Inventory (BSRI: Bem, 1974) or the Personal Attributes Questionnaire (PAQ:

¹For purposes of discussion, it is useful to adopt a categorical scheme to describe the various constellations of masculine and feminine characteristics. Following Spence, Helmreich, and Stapp (1975) and Bem (1977), those who are (relatively) high in both masculine and feminine qualities will be referred to as *Androgynous*, those who are high in masculine and low in feminine qualities as *Masculine*, those low in masculine and high in feminine qualities as *Feminine*, and those low in both sets of qualities as *Undifferentiated*. Masculine males and Feminine females will be described as sex-typed and those exhibiting the reverse pattern (Feminine males and Masculine females) will be described as cross-typed.

Spence, Helmreich, & Stapp, 1975; Spence & Helmreich, 1978), both of which are self-report trait measures containing separate masculinity (M) and femininity (F) scales. In both instruments, males have consistently been shown to score higher on M and lower on F than females across a wide spectrum of age and socioeconomic groups (e.g., Bem, 1974; Spence & Helmreich, 1978; O'Connor, Mann, & Bardwick, 1978). Although sex differences occur, the correlations between M and F scales within each sex have been found to be close to zero. This result makes it possible to identify groups of men and women who represent various combinations of levels of M and F, including Androgynous individuals, who, relative to others, score high on both scales.

Studies with both instruments, but particularly the PAQ, also suggest that in both sexes Androgynous individuals and, secondarily, Masculine individuals are higher in self-esteem and lower in anxiety, depression, and other indices of emotional distress than Feminine individuals or Undifferentiated individuals, low in both dimensions (e.g., Bem, 1977; Spence et al., 1975; Spence, Helmreich, & Holahan, *in press*).

These and other data obtained with the PAQ and BSRI are frequently cited as confirming the implications of the first and third of the propositions outlined above. These propositions, however, are unrestricted ones, referring to the *total class* of masculine and of feminine attributes, behaviors and self-images, or at least to those components of each class that are considered to be normatively desirable in each sex. The legitimacy of these general conclusions, however, depends jointly on one's interpretation of what the PAQ and BSRI measure—masculinity and femininity in their global sense or a more empirically limited set of masculine and feminine attributes—and on the validity of the second proposition outlined above, namely that masculinity and femininity are each unidimensional concepts to which all types of gender-related attributes contribute equally.

This essay will examine evidence obtained with the BSRI and PAQ that disputes the validity of these general conclusions and on the basis of that evidence, describe the more limited significance of the clusters of characteristics tapped by the BSRI and PAQ for understanding the behavior of men and women. Before considering this evidence, we will describe the psychometric properties of each of these instruments and the hypotheses that have been developed about their relationships to sex-linked behaviors and attributes.

Rationale and Psychometric Properties of the PAQ and BSR1

In its present form, the Personal Attributes Questionnaire (PAQ; Spence & Helmreich, 1978) consists of 24 abstract trait dimensions, i.e., descriptions of dispositional properties that make no reference to overt behavior or to the situations in which these dispositions are manifested. The items are assigned to three scales, only two of which, Masculinity (M) and Femininity (F), will concern us here.² In content, the M scale contains socially desirable traits that are stereotypically more characteristic of males than females and refer to self-assertive, *instrumental* attributes (e.g., independent, active, self-confident). The F scale contains socially desirable traits that are stereotypically more characteristic of females and refer to interpersonally-oriented *expressive* qualities (e.g., kind, tactful, aware of other's feelings). Factor analyses of the data from males and females from several populations yield a two factor solution that confirms the assignment of items to the M and F scales (Helmreich, Spence, & Wilhelm, in press).

According to our theoretical conceptions, the instrumental and expressive traits measured by the PAQ M and F scales reflect internally-located response predispositions or capacities that have considerable transsituational significance for behavior. These trait dispositions are to be distinguished from *role expectations*, the individual's perceptions of the types of behaviors that are anticipated by others in a given situation and of the positive and negative sanctions that are likely to accompany role conformity or violation, and from *role attitudes*, the individual's beliefs in the desirability or legitimacy of these role expectations. Situationally induced implicit or explicit role demands (including sex-role demands) and individuals' attitudes towards these demands are classes of variables that may be expected to influence overt behavior in addition to instrumental and expressive personality characteristics.

A critical theoretical issue to which this paper is addressed is the relationship between the particular masculine and feminine trait dimensions measured by the PAQ, and other gender-related phenomena such as sex-role preferences and adoptions. Elsewhere (Spence & Helmreich, 1978; Spence, 1979; Helmreich, Spence, & Holahan, in press) we have hypothesized that when behaviors are

²The third scale, labeled Masculinity-Femininity, consists of trait dimensions for which the social desirability ratings were related to gender, the ideal woman falling toward the stereotypically feminine pole and the ideal man toward the stereotypically masculine pole. Although interesting results are obtained with this scale, data obtained with it do not contradict any of the conclusions to be reported here.

involved that do not quite directly demand instrumental or expressive skills, only minimal associations are likely to be found between sex-role preferences and attitudes and individuals' M and F scores on our instrument.

These hypotheses follow from the general observation that over the life span both males and females enter into multiple role relationships, even within the category of gender-related roles. These roles are not uniformly consistent in their behavioral requirements with respect to instrumentality and expressiveness and in the relative status of their occupants. Throughout the life cycle both sexes are thus offered socially sanctioned opportunities to develop and to manifest both types of characteristics. Congruent with these observations, the socialization pressures imposed by parents on boys and girls to develop instrumental and expressive characteristics, while not equal (Maccoby & Jacklin, 1974), are not as sharply differentiated as expectations for many types of sex-role behaviors. Thus, individual differences within each sex in expressiveness and instrumentality often have origins quite different from individual differences in willingness to accept traditional sex-role assignments.

Like the PAQ, the Bem Sex Role Inventory (BSRI; Bem, 1974) contains abstract trait terms assigned to M and F scales. Many of the traits on each scale also describe socially desirable instrumental or expressive characteristics and in discussions of the BSRI and in experimental tests of its construct validity, Bem and her colleagues (e.g., Bem, 1974; Bem, Martyna, & Watson, 1976) have frequently emphasized this aspect of the scales' content. However, the instrument contains other types of items that result in a more factorially complex instrument than the PAQ (e.g., Pedhazur & Tetenbaum, in press).³ Particularly notable from a theoretical perspective is the inclusion of the traits "masculine" and "feminine" (on the M and F scales, respectively). Bem (1977) has further described Androgynous individuals (those earning high M and F scores on the BSRI) as more "behaviorally flexible" than others, exhibiting both masculine and feminine sex-role behaviors as called for by the situation.

This hypothesis is a general one, leading to the prediction that Androgynous individuals, as defined by the BSRI, are "flexible"

³Further complicating interpretation of data involving the BSRI, the F scale of this instrument contains several items that are socially undesirable (Pedhazur & Tetenbaum, in press) and not related to criterion measures in the same way as desirable expressive traits (Spence, Helmreich, & Holahan, in press). Despite their mixed content, the BSRI M and F scales still are largely measures of socially desirable instrumentality and expressiveness and will be discussed as such.

with respect to gender-related behaviors that have no apparent connection with the personality traits of instrumentality and expressiveness (Bem & Lenney, 1976). This proposition rests on the premise that there are global self-concepts of masculinity and femininity that are unidimensional and therefore can be satisfactorily measured by an instrument whose content is largely restricted to abstract instrumental and expressive personality traits. Contrary to the Spence-Helmreich hypotheses outlined above, this conception implies strong relationships between sex-role phenomena and patterns of masculine and feminine personality traits tapped by the BSRI and PAQ, independent of the degree to which these role variables involve instrumental and expressive dispositions.

Empirical Evidence

The construct validities of the PAQ and BSRI M and F scales as measures of instrumentality and expressiveness have been amply demonstrated (e.g., Bem, 1977; Bem et al., 1976; Ickes & Barnes, 1978; Klein & Willerman, in press; Lippa, 1978; Spence & Helmreich, 1978). We will not review that literature here. Instead we will examine evidence bearing on the strength of the association between these masculine and feminine trait dimensions and other aspects of masculinity and femininity.

Socially desirable vs. undesirable traits. It will be instructive to look first at a recent extension of the PAQ to include clusters of socially undesirable masculine and feminine traits (Spence, Helmreich, & Holahan, in press). Scales were developed that consisted of undesirable instrumental and expressive items that both stereotypically and in sex-report differentiated the sexes in the predicted directions. Correlations between parallel (same-sex-typed) desirable and undesirable scales were uniformly low. Further, different patterns of relationship were found between desirable M and F scales and two types of problem behaviors. These data indicate that even within this limited personality domain, neither masculinity nor femininity is unidimensional, the positive and negative aspects of each being uncorrelated and relating to other behaviors and attributes in ways that are quite different.

Global self-concepts of masculinity and femininity. Suggestive data bearing on the relationship between (socially desirable) instrumentality and expressiveness and individuals' global self-concepts of

their masculinity and femininity come from an analysis of the psychometric properties of the BSRI recently reported by Pedhazur and Tetenbaum (in press). Factor analyses revealed a 4-factor structure in each sex, one of these factors being made up of the two terms, "masculine" and "feminine," loaded in opposite directions and thus forming a *single bipolar factor*. Further, this factor was only minimally correlated in each sex with the remaining BSRI factors. Self-ratings on a series of questions requiring subjects' global assessments of their "masculinity" and "femininity" obtained by Storms (in press) also suggest that individuals conceive of these terms as bipolar opposites rather than independent dimensions. Storms also reported low correlations between these global indices and PAQ M and F scores. Data further suggesting that instrumental and expressive traits are not heavy contributors to individuals' global conceptions of their masculinity and femininity come from interview data being collected by the present writers in which men and women are asked to describe the characteristics that define their masculinity or femininity. Results indicate that personality characteristics are seldom salient in men's and women's self-concepts, physical characteristics and role responsibilities being far more prominent.

Relationships with Other Masculinity-Femininity Tests. Relevant data may be found in studies correlating scores on the BSRI or PAQ scales with scores on several conventional masculinity-femininity scales of diverse empirical content. Stapp and Kanner (as reported in Spence & Helmreich, 1978, pg. 21-22) found that when overlapping trait items were removed, virtually no relationship was found between PAQ M and F scores and responses to items on the CPI Femininity Scale (Gough, 1968). Similarly, in an investigation utilizing several other traditional masculinity-femininity scales, Wakefield, Sasek, Friedman, and Bowden (1976) reported that although these scales were significantly related to each other, their correlations with the BSRI M and F scales were nonsignificant.

Subsequent to the development of the BSRI and PAQ, other self-report instruments containing separate masculinity and femininity scales have appeared in the literature that have varying degrees of saturation with abstract instrumental and expressive traits. In a recent study of the relationship between the PAQ, BSRI, and two such instruments, the Personality Research Form ANDRO Scale (Berzins, Welling, & Wetter, 1978) and the Adjective Check List M and F scales (Heilbrun, 1976), Kelly, Furman, and Young (1978) re-

ported generally modest correlations between parallel sex-typed scales. By far the highest relationship ($r = .85$) was found between the BSRI and PAQ M scales, the pair of scales having the greatest overlap in item content. One may infer from these results that instrumental and expressive traits are not strongly related to other types of masculine and feminine attributes.

Sex-role attitudes. The associations have been determined between PAQ M and F scores and scores on the Attitudes Toward Women Scale (AWS: Spence & Helmreich, 1972, 1978; in press), a questionnaire inquiring into the rights and roles of women. In a variety of samples of diverse ages and socioeconomic backgrounds, the pattern of signs of correlations has been found to be theoretically reasonable but their magnitudes are small and, even in very large samples, are often nonsignificant.

Orlofsky, Aslin, and Ginsburg (1977) have also found very weak relationships between the AWS and BSRI M and F scores. Higher correlations with the BSRI scales were reported by Abrahams, Feldman, and Nash (1978), who determined the *personal* role choices and attitudes of young adult women, M being negatively related ($r = -.32$) and F being positively related ($r = .22$) to conventional role choices. However, nonsignificant relationships were found in men.

Preferences for Sex-typed Activities. In an experimental test of Bem's sex-role flexibility hypothesis, Bem and Lenney (1976) assessed men's and women's comfort in and preference for performing routine masculine and feminine tasks (e.g., ironing a napkin, pounding a nail). Subjects were preselected from the center and the two extremes of the BSRI score distribution, obtained by Bem's (1974) original subtractive method of combining M and F scores, to form equal groups of Masculine, Feminine, and balanced individuals. Sex-typed individuals avoided opposite-sex tasks significantly more than balanced and cross-typed individuals. However, the procedure of selecting subjects from the extremes of the difference score distribution precluded determination of the magnitude of the effects that were obtained. Further, since subjects high in M and F were not distinguished from other "balanced" individuals, the data permitted no conclusions about whether Androgynous individuals are more flexible than others.

In a conceptual replication of the Bem and Lenney study using the PAQ and unselected male and female subjects, Helmreich,

Spence, and Holahan (in press) found that 80% of the variance in masculine vs. feminine task preference was determined by subjects' gender. Contrary to Bem's predictions, ratings of anticipated comfort in task performance were positively related to M and F scores in *both sexes in both* task categories, suggesting the role of instrumentality and expressiveness per se. On the forced-choice preference measure, no significant effects were found for females. In males, the Masculine group showed the greatest preference for Masculine tasks, thus replicating Bem and Lenney, but Androgynous males did not show the most balanced choices. Further, even within the male group, the PAQ variable accounted for only 13% of the total variance. (AWS scores accounted for 23%.)

The relationship between sex-typing in instrumental and expressive characteristics and preference for sex-typed activities has also been investigated in a study of several hundred first and second grade children given a test battery including a child's version of the PAQ (CPAQ) and a toy preference test (Simms, Davis, Foushee, Holahan, Spence, & Helmreich, Note 1). Discrepancies between the sexes in liking for traditionally masculine and feminine toys were considerably greater than discrepancies in CPAQ scores. Of critical importance to the present discussion, nonsignificant relationships were found in both boys and girls between the CPAQ and toy preference measures.

Responsiveness to Sex-Role Demands. It might be argued that more intimate associations between men's and women's instrumental and expressive characteristics and their degree of conformity to sex-role standards would occur in interactions between the sexes in which normative expectations are that males assume the dominant role. Relevant data are provided by Megargee (1969) in an investigation in which subjects were selected on the basis of scores on the CPI Dominance scale, a scale that taps one component of masculine instrumentality. Pairs of subjects, one of whom was high dominant and the other low dominant, were asked to choose a leader before working on a task in the laboratory. In same-sex pairs, the high dominant member was selected as leader in about three quarters of the cases. This figure was even higher in mixed-sex pairs in which the male was high dominant, demonstrating the added effect of sex-role expectations. In mixed-sex pairs in which the male was low dominant, the male became the leader three quarters of the time, this outcome also showing the powerful influence of role demands. However, it was almost always the high dominant female

who took the initiative in selecting the low dominant male as leader. These findings are instructive in several respects. Most generally, they provide a vivid example of the conceptual distinction between *gender-related traits* and *sex-role expectations*. More specifically, the women's data illustrate that when the direct expression of a trait disposition (dominance) conflicts with sex-role expectations, that disposition may be manifested in a modified or disguised form that does not flaunt these expectations and at least on the surface may even be aimed at upholding them. The women's data also suggest that individuals who are nonsextyped in their personality characteristics are not necessarily less responsive to obvious role demands than are sex-typed individuals.

Further evidence on the latter point is found in a study by Klein and Willerman (in press) employing female college students who had been given the PAQ. Three person problem-solving groups were set up, two of the members being a pair of either male or female confederates. In a condition in which subjects were given no special instructions about their behavior, significant main effects were found for sex of the confederates, the women exhibiting markedly less dominance behavior with males than with other females. Analysis of the conjoint contribution of M and F scores was conducted by assigning subjects to categorical groups. With *both* male and female confederates, Masculine women were most dominant, followed in order by women who were Androgynous, Feminine, and Undifferentiated. Thus both situational factors—presence or absence of sex-role demands—and subjects' personality characteristics significantly influenced the amount of dominance behavior. The critical question for our present purpose concerns the interaction between sex of confederate and PAQ score category. If M and F are linked to responsiveness to role demands, one might expect that Feminine women would lower their level of dominance behavior in the presence of male confederates most and Masculine women least. However, the interaction was statistically nonsignificant.

IMPLICATIONS

This examination of the content of the BSRI and the PAQ and their empirical relationships to other gender-related phenomena suggests that these instruments have no face validity and, at best, only minimal construct validity, as *sex-role* measures. It is more ap-

propriate to regard the PAQ, and to a large extent the BSRI, more narrowly as trait measures of socially desirable instrumental and expressive characteristics. While these instruments are related to behaviors requiring instrumental or expressive capacities, they have no necessary predictive utility for other gender-related phenomena.

This conclusion requires re-examination of the general proposition that "masculinity" and "femininity" are more usefully conceived as independent continua rather than as endpoints of a single dimension. While the dualistic conception has been found to hold for certain classes of attributes, its viability as applied to the full range of behaviors and person variables that distinguish the sexes cannot be established without further empirical study. Similarly, the hypothesis that greater social-psychological advantages accrue to those who are androgynous in some global sense than to others has yet to be fully tested, much of the evidence in support of this contention coming from investigations of the correlates of socially desirable instrumental and expressive traits. Investigation of these and related issues awaits more conceptual refinement of situations, of behavior, and of the components of masculinity and femininity.⁴

Positive Implications of Instrumentality and Expressiveness for Sex-Role Behaviors. Our conclusion that the personality dimensions tapped by the BSRI and PAQ often do not have strong, simple relationships with role-related behaviors does not imply that instrumentality and expressiveness are unimportant to our understanding of the psychology of women and men. In this section, we shall review some of the evidence bearing on the significance of these factors.

Although we have noted that the sexes tend to be more sharply distinguished in many of their sex-role behaviors than in their personality characteristics, the sexes do differ, on the average, in both instrumentality and expressiveness. Further, the proposition that stereotypically masculine roles demand instrumental characteristics and that stereotypically feminine roles demand expressive characteristics, while oversimplified and overstated, is not without some foundation. For example, many female-dominated profes-

⁴Some initial attempts (e.g., Baucom, 1976) have been made to develop instruments containing separate masculinity and femininity scales that tap a broader set of person variables than abstract trait dimensions and are promising beginnings. Unfortunately, the tacit assumption that masculinity and femininity are unidimensional continues to guide their rationale. As yet, no systematic efforts have been made to identify the subclasses of masculine and feminine phenomena (by means of content analyses and statistical techniques such as factor analysis) and to determine the relationships of these classes to each other and to other variables.

sions, such as nursing or elementary school teaching, are oriented toward helping others. These professions may be particularly attractive to those of both sexes who are relatively high in expressive characteristics and the desire to serve others. However, sex differences in personality, in addition to the factors associated with the identification of these professions as "female," may contribute to the greater proportion of women that continues to be found in their ranks. Conversely, entry into and successful attainment in highly demanding, male-dominated professions may require a high level of instrumentality in both sexes and thus favor males.

Evidence suggesting that expressivity and instrumentality are related to career choice has been reported by Wertheim, Widom, and Wortzel (1978) in a study of the characteristics of graduate students in several male and female dominated disciplines. The present writers and their students (e.g., Sanders, Note 2; Spence & Helmreich, 1978; Helmreich, Spence, Beane, Lucker, & Matthews, Note 4) have also demonstrated that men, and even more particularly women, engaged in demanding activities (varsity athletics, academic science, business management) tend to be higher in instrumentality than their same-sex peers. While men and women who undertake these activities tend to be similar in this aspect of their personalities, the ratio of the sexes, though changing, remains heavily in favor of males. As suggested above, sex differences in personality—a lingering legacy of sex-role distinctions—may be one of the factors contributing to this state of affairs.

Still another suggestive result is found in the Abrahams et al. (1978) study, cited earlier, in which modest but significant correlations were found in women between BSRI scores and choice of purely domestic vs. career roles, F being positively and M negatively related to traditional choices. The appeal of caring for a family in women high in expressiveness is quite to be expected. Less frequently mentioned is the attraction that domesticity may have for women low in instrumentality. Such women may tend to perceive the home as a safer and pleasanter haven than a demanding career in the world outside.

Conventional wisdom has it that the instrumental man, fulfilling his traditional role as the family's protector and provider, and the expressive woman, fulfilling her nurturant role, have not only complementary roles but also complementary personality characteristics that contribute to the stability and harmony of the family unit. A pair of recent studies by Ickes and his colleagues (Ickes & Barnes, 1978, Ickes, Schermer, & Steeno, Note 3) have disturbing im-

plications for the validity of this time-honored view. In these studies, the investigators observed the interactions of mixed-sex and same-sex pairs of college students who were purportedly waiting for a laboratory experiment and later obtained each individual's reactions to the encounter and to the other person. Subjects, pre-selected on the basis of their scores on the BSRI, were assigned to pairs in which both members were Androgynous, one was Androgynous and the other conventionally sex-typed, or both were sex-typed. (In the case of mixed-sex pairs, the latter was thus composed of a Masculine man and Feminine woman.) In both same-sex and mixed-sex pairs, Androgynous dyads tended to exhibit a high level of interaction, a high degree of satisfaction with the encounter, and greater liking for the other individual. The type of pair in which satisfaction, liking, and level of interaction were all relatively low contained a Masculine male and a Feminine female.

In explaining their results, Ickes et al. (Note 3) proposed that a high level of interactional involvement demands a synthesis of both instrumental and expressive capacities in each participant, while satisfaction with the interaction requires a congruence of interactional styles (as represented by pairs in which both members belong to the same categorical group). Androgynous pairs meet both of their conditions while mixed-sex pairs in which both members are sex-typed meet neither. While Ickes et al. warn that these findings may be limited to brief meetings of individuals with little or no prior acquaintance, we suspect that they have implications for married couples and others involved in longterm relationships: the degree of instrumentality and expressiveness possessed by each member of the dyad affects not only the nature of their day-to-day interactions but also what each is willing or able to give to and, in turn, expects to receive from the other. Rather than complementing each other in their social and emotional needs, the Masculine male and Feminine female may be a temperamental mismatch.

In our research on families (Spence & Helmreich, 1978), we have found that couples who are sex-typed in personality (Masculine husband, Feminine wife, according to their M and F scores on the PAQ) represent the most frequent husband-wife combination. However, a substantial percentage fall into other couple types that according to Ickes et al. would lead to low interactional involvement and/or low levels of satisfaction because of incongruence in interpersonal orientation. Our data also indirectly suggest that couple type is related to dynamics within the home. For example, the reported personality characteristics of the mother and father, con-

sidered in combination, were more strongly related to the patterns of their children's instrumentality and expressiveness and to the parents' child rearing practices and attitudes than to the characteristics of each parent considered separately. Most favorable outcomes (in terms of children's characteristics and in benevolent patterns of childrearing practices) were associated with Androgynous-Androgynous couples and markedly less favorable outcomes with Masculine-Feminine couples. (Even less favorable patterns were found in couples in which neither spouse was Androgynous and at least one was non-sex-typed.)

While these results are too complex to be encompassed solely by notions about congruence between interactional styles and level of involvement, the latter factors very likely affect the relations between husband and wife and contribute to the emotional climate within the family.

CONCLUSIONS

Temperamental differences in instrumentality and expressiveness are frequently mentioned as core distinctions between men and women and their existence has been used to justify traditional sex-role ideology. Even among traditionalists, however, attitudes towards these clusters of characteristics have been ambivalent, if not contradictory. Our value system demands that men as well as women be considerate of others and have the ability to engage in affectionate relationships. It is good to be interpersonally skilled and able to love but bad to be "feminine," thus leaving men in something of a dilemma about expressivity. Similarly, even women who willingly follow the path of full-time homemaker and mother are expected to have a sense of independence and self-assertiveness so that they do not cling to their husbands for constant emotional support and reassurance, are able to run their households and rear their children effectively, and if need be, can survive emotionally and financially in their husbands' absence. What has traditionally been demanded, however, is that except in limited areas, women accord men higher status, power, and deference. Thus women are expected to possess instrumental competencies that can be called upon when and where needed and simultaneously to assume a submissive, dependent role in many of their relationships with men.

Behavioral observations, as well as data from psychometric

devices such as the PAQ and BSRI and other self-report instruments (e.g., Monge, 1973) indicate that from an early age, males and females differ in instrumentality and expressiveness, although there is considerable variability within each sex on both dimensions and considerable overlap between the sexes. Knowledge of the expected roles of men and women and societal rules about the social interactions of the sexes also comes early. These societal roles, which involve behavior in particular settings, have tended to become confused, in both popular and scientific thinking, with personality traits that refer to generalized dispositional tendencies or capacities that are manifested or suppressed in overt behavior as dictated by situational requirements. The two sets of phenomena have come to be treated as if they were conceptually and empirically identical. Once "masculine" and "feminine" personality characteristics have been equated with "masculine" and "feminine" roles, it is a small step to assume that, since all masculine and feminine phenomena (purportedly) covary, men and women who are androgynous in their instrumental and expressive traits (and thus "flexible" in their capacities to meet situational demands for these dispositional capacities) are androgynous (and thus flexible) in all other domains. Similarly, those who are sex-typed in personality are expected, by this line of reasoning, to be sex-typed in the total class of behaviors and attributes defining masculinity and femininity and thus behaviorally inflexible.

Our inspection of the literature questions the validity of these propositions. The evidence obtained with the PAQ and BSRI suggests that sex-role behaviors and preferences are often only minimally related to instrumental and expressive trait dimensions. In accounting for sex-role behaviors, many other variables, such as abilities, interests, attitudes, values, and external pressures must be taken into account. The relationship of the individual to significant others and the expectations and behaviors of these others must also be considered. This complex network of variables, determines the individual's sex-role preferences and behaviors.

While suitable caution must be exercised in generalizing the results obtained with the PAQ and BSRI to gender-related phenomena *per se*, the data suggest that the personal qualities of instrumentality and expressiveness measured by these instruments may nonetheless have considerable importance for many socially significant behaviors, some of them role related. Our understanding of the implications of these trait dimensions for men and for women will be forwarded if we recognize them for what they are and dis-

entangle them from global conceptions of sex-roles and of masculinity, femininity, and androgyny.

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